Price Suppression and Reliability Shortfall in PJM's Capacity Market

May 3, 2026

Abstract

The January 2025 Shapiro settlement modified PJM's capacity-auction demand curve to impose a price cap of approximately \$325 per megawatt-day of unforced capacity (UCAP) and a price floor of approximately \$175/MW-day on the 2026/27 and 2027/28 Base Residual Auctions, with a projected consumer benefit of over \$21 billion. Standard price-control theory predicts that a binding ceiling on a tight market truncates both the price signal and the quantity procured at the cap. I evaluate the connection by combining a calibrated symmetric supply function equilibrium of PJM's seven completed auctions with the Independent Market Monitor's unrestricted-VRR counterfactual. The SFE confirms that under IMM-reported concentration ($\mathrm{RSI}_3 < 1$) the unconstrained equilibrium reaches the auction's operative Point (a) cap, so the settlement cap binds. The cap-incidence panel shows that a quantity shortfall relative to the reliability requirement emerged in both capped years (0.23% in 2026/27 and 4.7% in 2027/28), with no comparable shortfall in any prior auction in the sample. The IMM's mechanical counterfactual implies a system-level two-year revenue difference of \$13.08 billion and would have procured approximately 9,500 MW more capacity in 2027/28, against a Pennsylvania-stated figure of approximately \$21 billion that mixes the price and quantity channels. Under any reading consistent with real underlying scarcity, the cap induces a quantity shortfall and truncates the investment signal precisely in the years it would have been most informative.

1 Introduction

On January 28, 2025, Pennsylvania Governor Josh Shapiro announced an agreement with PJM Interconnection that capped capacity prices in the 2026/27 and 2027/28 Base Residual Auctions at approximately $325/MW-day of unforced capacity (UCAP) and set a floor at approximately $175/MW-day (Office of Governor Josh Shapiro, 2025; Bresler and Keech, 2025). The settlement followed a Section 206 complaint filed against PJM's tariff one month earlier (Bresler and Keech, 2025) and was projected by the Commonwealth to save consumers over $21 billion across the two delivery years (Office of Governor Josh Shapiro, 2025). Standard price control theory predicts that a ceiling on a market that would otherwise clear above the cap causes a shortage of supply at the cap. When the supply willing to clear at the cap is short of the planning target, the auction clears short. Weitzman (1974) formalizes the logic in the prices-versus-quantities framework, and Glaeser and Luttmer (2003) document a distinct allocative consequence in the rent control context. Ceilings misallocate consumption across heterogeneous demanders. The Shapiro cap, layered on top of a publicly known administrative demand curve and a concentrated supply, is a direct candidate for these predictions.

Both capped auctions cleared short of the reliability requirement. The 2026/27 BRA cleared 314 MW below the requirement, a 0.23% shortfall, and 492 MW below the IRM-implied reserve target. The 2027/28 BRA cleared 6,623 MW below the requirement, a 4.7% shortfall, and 6,517 MW below the IRM target. The PJM Independent Market Monitor (IMM) declared both auctions "not competitive" (Monitoring Analytics, LLC, 2026), and an IMM mechanical scenario that re-clears the same offers against the unrestricted (pre-settlement) VRR curve implies that approximately 9,500 MW more capacity would have cleared in 2027/28. That additional capacity is enough to restore the reliability requirement plus a positive reserve margin. The shortage emerged when the cap began to bind and not before. This paper traces that connection.

2 Literature Review

Klemperer and Meyer (1989) formalized the supply function equilibrium concept for demand-uncertain oligopolies, in which each firm commits to a price-quantity schedule before demand is realized. Symmetric Nash equilibria are characterized by a first order differential equation whose solutions form a continuum bounded above by the Cournot schedule and below by the competitive schedule $p = c$. Under demand uncertainty with bounded support, every trajectory between the two stationary solutions is itself a Nash equilibrium, so prediction and comparative statics require an equilibrium selection criterion. Green and Newbery (1992) apply this framework to the England and Wales electricity market and establish the methodological template now standard in the calibrated SFE literature. They derive the symmetric ODE, integrate backward from the capacity constrained boundary, and calibrate to observed market structure. Holmberg (2008) shows that in capacity constrained electricity markets the symmetric SFE is unique when rivals' capacity constraints simultaneously bind with positive probability. This uniqueness result provides the boundary condition I use as an equilibrium selection device in the deterministic BRA. Anderson and Hu (2008) and Holmberg (2007) extend the existence and characterization results to asymmetric firms, while Rudkevich et al. (1998) bridges the Klemperer-Meyer theory and applied generation market modeling.

Empirical and applied work has refined the SFE for electricity markets. Wolfram (1999) provides an empirical test in the England and Wales duopoly and finds prices consistent with a strategic SFE rather than the competitive limit, and Sweeting (2007) extends the analysis through restructuring. Sioshansi and Oren (2007) fits the SFE to ERCOT balancing market data and assesses its predictive performance in Texas. Baldick et al. (2004) develop a variant useful for transmission-constrained networks, and Vasin et al. (2016) for uniform price auction mechanisms like the kind PJM operates. Anderson and Xu (2005) derive supply function equilibria in spot markets with contracts and price caps and show that a binding cap pushes the equilibrium toward the capacity-cap boundary, with quantity rationed at the cap when

supply is insufficient. The Shapiro settlement is one practical instance of that mechanism.

The capacity market design literature originates from the "missing-money" problem. Regulatory price caps in the wholesale energy market hold down the scarcity rents that would otherwise finance investment in peaking generation, leaving energy revenues insufficient to recover fixed costs of new entry (Joskow and Tirole, 2007; Joskow, 2008). Cramton and Stoft (2005) and Cramton and Ockenfels (2012) develop the design principles for a forward capacity instrument with a sloped administrative demand curve, and Cramton and Stoft (2007) defends uniform price auctions over discriminatory alternatives in this setting. PJM's Reliability Pricing Model is analyzed dynamically by Hobbs et al. (2007), whose proposal informed the design of the VRR curve, and Bowring (2013) provides the institutional account from the Independent Market Monitor's perspective. Pfeifenberger et al. (2011) offers an early performance assessment. Hogan (2005) articulates the energy-only alternative, in which scarcity prices in the wholesale energy market are allowed to clear at administrative ceilings calibrated to the value of lost load and so deliver the investment signal that capacity market advocates argue is otherwise missing.

The economics of binding price ceilings is foundational for this paper. Weitzman (1974) shows that the choice between price and quantity instruments depends on the relative slopes of marginal benefit and marginal cost, and that price instruments dominate when supply is inelastic in the short run. Glaeser and Luttmer (2003) demonstrate in the rent control context that binding ceilings generate a distinctive consumption misallocation across heterogeneous demanders. Experimental evidence in Vossler et al. (2009) confirms the qualitative shortage prediction in laboratory uniform price wholesale electricity markets. The cap interventions this literature has primarily studied are spot market bid caps and offer level mitigation rules of the kind PJM's Three Pivotal Supplier test imposes. The Shapiro settlement is distinct in being a prospective, market-wide cap on a forward capacity instrument, which is part of why the textbook shortage prediction surfaces so cleanly in this setting. The market power literature on restructured electricity markets, including Wolak (2003), Borenstein et al.

(2002), and Bushnell et al. (2008), supplies the methodological backdrop for distinguishing competitive from strategic clearing. The applied question of this paper is how these classical predictions play out in PJM's capacity market under the Shapiro settlement, with attention to the investment signal cost of a binding cap during a period of scarcity (Cramton and Stoft, 2005).

3 Institutional Background

PJM Interconnection operates the largest competitive wholesale electricity market in North America, coordinating about 201,000 MW of installed generating capacity across thirteen states and the District of Columbia. Its capacity market, the Reliability Pricing Model (RPM), was introduced in 2007 to procure forward commitments to be available during a future delivery year (Bowring, 2013; PJM Interconnection, L.L.C., 2025; Pfeifenberger et al., 2011). The market exists to address the "missing-money" problem. Regulatory price caps in the wholesale energy market suppress the scarcity rents that would otherwise finance investment in peaking generation, leaving energy revenues insufficient to recover fixed costs of new entry (Joskow and Tirole, 2007; Joskow, 2008; Cramton and Stoft, 2005). RPM fills the gap with a forward instrument that pays for availability and so completes the revenue stream needed for resource adequacy.

The primary procurement mechanism is the Base Residual Auction (BRA), a one-sided, sealed-bid, uniform-price auction held approximately three years before the start of the delivery year it procures. PJM acts as the administrative buyer through a publicly announced demand schedule called the Variable Resource Requirement (VRR) curve, and aggregates resource-level offers into an upward-stepping supply schedule. Capacity is denominated in unforced capacity (UCAP) terms rather than nameplate installed capacity (ICAP). Each resource's accreditation ratio reflects the fraction of nameplate capacity expected to deliver during system stress, with forced outage adjustments for thermal resources and Effective

Load Carrying Capability (ELCC) adjustments for intermittent and energy-limited resources (PJM Interconnection, L.L.C., 2025, 2024). The reference dual fuel combustion turbine used in PJM's planning parameters has an accreditation of approximately 79%, so a 100 MW nameplate unit clears as 79 MW of UCAP and is paid the clearing price on those 79 MW. Clearing is solved jointly across the RTO and constrained sub-Locational Devierability Areas (LDA) subject to Capacity Emergency Transfer Limit (CETL) constraints, which bound the imports each LDA can receive from the rest of the system. When a CETL constraint binds, the LDA's clearing price separates from the RTO price and the constrained LDA pays a locational premium (PJM Interconnection, L.L.C., 2024).

A cleared resource receives the LDA's uniform clearing price, in dollars per MW-day of UCAP, for every day of the delivery year, settled monthly. A 200 MW UCAP cleared resource at a $300/MW-day clearing price thus receives roughly $1.8 million per month in capacity revenue. The cleared resource also takes on a Capacity Performance (CP) obligation, meaning it must be available to produce energy when PJM declares Performance Assessment Hours during the delivery year. These are typically tight intervals when reserves are low (PJM Interconnection, L.L.C., 2025). Failure to deliver during a Performance Assessment Hour triggers a non-performance charge calibrated to a multiple of the Net Cost of New Entry (Net CONE), and over-performance during the same hours earns a bonus payment funded from the non-performance charges. The CP framework is intended to align capacity payments with delivery year availability rather than mere ownership of nameplate capacity. The penalty mechanics themselves are not modeled in this paper, and the SFE setup of Section 4 treats committed capacity as delivered.

Resources whose offers do not clear in the BRA have several alternatives. PJM conducts three Incremental Auctions (1st, 2nd, and 3rd IA) approximately twenty, ten, and four months before the delivery year, in which capacity needs that change after the BRA are procured or released. These changes are driven by load forecast revisions, planned resource cancellations, or replacement capacity transactions. A resource that did not clear the BRA can re-offer in

any IA. Outside RPM, a load serving entity may opt out of PJM's centralized procurement under the Fixed Resource Requirement (FRR) Alternative, securing capacity bilaterally from generators with which it contracts directly. FRR resources and load are removed from the BRA and bilateral capacity arrangements substitute for centralized clearing. A resource may also forgo capacity commitment for a delivery year and seek revenue solely from the energy and ancillary services markets, accepting the lost capacity payment in exchange for operational flexibility. Finally, an existing resource contemplating retirement may file a Notice of Deactivation. If PJM determines that retirement would create a reliability concern that cannot be remedied through transmission upgrades or substitute resources, the unit may be designated Reliability Must-Run (RMR) and continue operating under a cost-of-service agreement at a regulated rate distinct from the BRA clearing price.

The VRR curve is the administrative demand schedule presented to sellers in each BRA (PJM Interconnection, L.L.C., 2025). Under the old three-point design (delivery years 2021/22 through 2025/26) it is parameterized by Point (a), the price cap at $1.5 \times$ Net CONE, Point (b) at $0.75 \times$ Net CONE at the reliability requirement, and Point (c) at zero price above the reliability requirement (Bowring, 2013; Pfeifenberger et al., 2011). Net CONE is the annualized cost of a reference generating unit, net of projected energy and ancillary-service revenues, computed independently for each LDA (PJM Interconnection, L.L.C., 2025, 2024). FERC approved a restructured four-point design taking effect with the 2026/27 delivery year (Federal Energy Regulatory Commission, 2025). An explicit price floor at approximately \$177–\$179/MW-day eliminates the collapse to zero price for surplus capacity. Both 2026/27 and 2027/28 cleared at exactly the new design Point (a) price, which under the Shapiro/PJM settlement embodies the agreed maximum price (the settlement cap $\bar{p}_S$ described below). This pattern is what motivates the following analysis. Recent BRAs have run on compressed lead times relative to the canonical three-year forward design (Table 1), and the implications are discussed in Section 8.

Table 1: PJM Base Residual Auction Timeline and RTO Clearing Outcomes, 2021/22 to 2027/28

Delivery Year	BRA Date	Lead (mo.)	Clearing ($/MW-day)	Net CONE ($/MW-day)	VRR Design	At Cap
2021/22	May 2018	37.0	$140.00	$321.57	Old	No
2022/23	May 2021	12.5	$50.00	$260.50	Old	No
2023/24	July 2022	11.0	$34.13	$274.96	Old	No
2024/25	December 2022	17.8	$28.92	$293.19	Old	No
2025/26	July 2024	10.1	$269.92	$228.81	Old	No
2026/27	July 2025	10.2	$329.17	$212.14	New	Yes
2027/28	December 2025	17.7	$333.44	$242.52	New	Yes

Note: Prices in nominal dollars per MW-day. "At Cap" indicates the RTO clearing price equaled the Point (a) cap. Source: PJM BRA results and planning parameters.

PJM's primary market power mitigation mechanism is the Three Pivotal Supplier (TPS) test. Supplier i is pivotal in LDA ℓ if removing i's capacity would cause aggregate supply to fall short of the reliability requirement. The Residual Supply Index for k suppliers is

$$\mathrm{RSI}_k^\ell = \frac{\text{Total capacity in LDA } \ell \; - \; \text{Capacity of top-}k \text{ sellers}}{\text{Reliability requirement for LDA } \ell}. \tag{1}$$

Mitigation triggers when $\mathrm{RSI}_1 \leq 1$ or $\mathrm{RSI}_3 \leq 1$, capping affected suppliers' offers at their unit-specific Net Avoidable Cost Rate (Net ACR) (Bowring, 2013; Monitoring Analytics, LLC, 2026). Table 2 summarizes RTO-level outcomes. $\mathrm{RSI}_3 < 1$ in every year of the sample, ranging from 0.62 to 0.73, so the threshold is met throughout.

Table 2: TPS Test Results at the RTO Level: Residual Supply Indices by Delivery Year

Delivery Year	RSI_1	RSI_3	Participants	All Pivotal
2022/23	0.81	0.73	130	Yes
2023/24	0.78	0.68	134	Yes
2024/25	0.77	0.64	133	Yes
2025/26	0.82	0.62	128	Yes
2026/27	0.82	0.64	153	Yes
2027/28	0.82	0.63	155	Yes

Note: "All Pivotal" indicates $RSI_1 < 1$ for each of the three largest sellers individually. Source: PJM IMM State of the Market reports.

The high BRA clearing prices of 2025/26 and the anticipation of similarly elevated prices in subsequent auctions triggered the political intervention that directly modified the demand curve for two delivery years. The Shapiro complaint argued that the VRR Point (a) price cap was set too high given lower expectations for new entry in the near term, and that compressed auction lead times limited the ability of new generation to respond to high prices in upcoming delivery periods. High prices would therefore not produce efficient entry and instead represented an unjust and unreasonable rate (Bresler and Keech, 2025).

The settlement agreement reached imposes a price band on the demand curves for both 2026/27 and 2027/28 delivery years, with a headline price cap of approximately $325/MW-day UCAP and a price floor of approximately $175/MW-day UCAP. The settlement does not impose an external price constraint on an otherwise unchanged auction. Instead it modifies the shape of the VRR demand curve itself. The demand curve is flat above the cap, so no capacity with offers above the cap can clear. The existing VRR sloped segment applies between cap and floor. At or below the floor the demand curve extends horizontally to clear all available capacity at the floor. This mechanism applies identically to the RTO and to every LDA demand curve, subject to CETL transmission limits (Bresler and Keech, 2025;

Federal Energy Regulatory Commission, 2025).

The \$325 figure is the announced summary of the agreement and is the number that anchors public discussion of the settlement. FERC's implementing order (Federal Energy Regulatory Commission, 2025) translated the agreement into year-specific Point (a) values of the new four-point VRR design, setting Point (a) at \$329.17/MW-day for 2026/27 and \$333.44/MW-day for 2027/28 (Table 1). These are the operative dollar values that appear in the auction. The gap between the headline and the FERC implementation reflects the calibration of the new design to year-specific planning parameters. Throughout the paper $\bar{p}_S$ denotes the operative new-design Point (a) in each capped delivery year, so $\bar{p}_S = \$329.17$ in 2026/27 and $\bar{p}_S = \$333.44$ in 2027/28. "Approximately \$325/MW-day" is retained as narrative shorthand and is not the dollar value used in any quantitative comparison.

4 A Price-Cap Lens on the Shapiro Settlement

Standard price control theory's prediction is that when the regulator imposes a cap $\bar{p}_S$ below the unconstrained clearing price p^*, demand at $\bar{p}_S$ exceeds the quantity sellers will provide. The gap between $D(\bar{p}_S)$ and $S(\bar{p}_S)$ is the shortage. Weitzman (1974) formalizes the choice between price and quantity instruments under uncertainty, and Glaeser and Luttmer (2003) document a separate allocative consequence of binding ceilings. Binding ceilings misallocate consumption across heterogeneous demanders, beyond the standard deadweight triangle.

The Shapiro settlement applies this framework directly to PJM's Reliability Pricing Model. The settlement modifies the VRR curve to be flat for all $p \geq \bar{p}_S = \$325$/MW-day UCAP and adds a flat segment at $\underline{p}_S \approx \$175$/MW-day for low prices (Section 3). The capped auction therefore clears whatever capacity sellers offer at or below $\bar{p}_S$. If aggregate offers at the cap fall short of the reliability requirement q_b (the Point (b) quantity in the VRR curve), the auction clears at $(\bar{p}_S, Q_{\text{offered}})$ with $Q_{\text{offered}} < q_b$, and two consequences are visible separately. The price signal is cut off on the upper segment, and where supply is tight the

cleared quantity falls short of the planning target. Which of these channels was operative in 2026/27 and 2027/28 is the empirical question I aim to answer.

To distinguish a binding cap from a redundant one, this paper uses the symmetric supply function equilibrium (SFE) of Klemperer and Meyer (1989) as a characterization of the unconstrained equilibrium price. The setup follows the calibrated-electricity-market template of Green and Newbery (1992). There are K symmetric pivotal sellers with constant marginal cost c submitting nondecreasing supply schedules $S_i(\cdot)$ against the publicly known VRR demand curve $D(\cdot)$, alongside a competitive fringe of size $\bar{Q}_f$ pricing at c. Equilibrium is selected by the Holmberg (2008) boundary condition, which requires each seller's supply function to attain its capacity at the operative Point (a) cap, denoted $\bar{p}$. In capped delivery years $\bar{p}$ coincides with the settlement value $\bar{p}_S$ described in Section 3. In pre-settlement years $\bar{p}$ is the old-design Point (a) ($1.5 \times$ Net CONE). Under symmetry the equilibrium reduces to a scalar first-order ODE in the per-firm supply function $s(p)$, integrated backward from $s(\bar{p}) = \bar{q}$. The derivation is standard (Klemperer and Meyer, 1989; Green and Newbery, 1992; Rudkevich et al., 1998) and is not reproduced here.

The model's content for this paper is binary. The at-cap regime ($p^* = \bar{p}$) obtains whenever rivals' capacity constraints simultaneously bind, that is, when K pivotal sellers cannot meet residual demand at any interior price. Otherwise the interior regime ($p^* < \bar{p}$) holds. Solving the symmetric ODE for the calibrations of Section 5 gives the at-cap regime for $K \leq 3$ and the interior regime for $K \geq 4$, with the price-cost margin falling by roughly 20 to 25 percentage points across this regime change.

PJM's auction concentration fits the $K \leq 3$ regime. The IMM reports $\text{RSI}_3 < 1$ in every sample year (Table 2), meaning the three largest sellers are collectively pivotal at the reliability requirement. A symmetric $K = 3$ calibration is therefore the natural choice and is maintained throughout.

The SFE plays a narrow role in my analysis, functioning as a way to show that, under the IMM-reported concentration, the relevant unconstrained equilibrium belongs to the at-cap

regime. In that regime the SFE matches the observed clearing price by construction, not as an independent empirical test, and the dollar value of $\bar{p}$ is read directly from PJM's planning parameters. The classification rests on a symmetric representation of the three pivotal sellers, and a fully asymmetric calibration could shift the regime boundary. The IMM- reported pivotality and the persistent gap between sector average avoidable cost rate (ACR) and observed clearing prices both point in the at-cap direction, but the symmetry assumption is the most prominent caveat on the regime claim.

5 Data and Calibration

The calibration draws on four publicly available datasets. PJM publishes VRR curve anchor points, Net CONE, CETL, and reliability requirements in advance of each BRA, and clearing prices and quantities by LDA after each auction. The IMM reports Herfindahl-Hirschman Indices (HHI), Residual Supply Indices (RSI), and Capacity Performance offer-cap composition in its annual State of the Market reports. I join the four datasets at the LDA delivery year level into a master panel covering all seven completed BRAs, 2021/22 through 2027/28.

Table 3 reports the RTO VRR parameters. Under the old three-point design, Points (a) and (b) equal 1.5× and 0.75× Net CONE respectively, with a transitional administrative cap in 2025/26. Under the new four-point design (2026/27 onward), Points (b) and (c) collapse to the floor price of \$177–\$179/MW-day and Point (a) is set by FERC Order ER25-1357.

Table 3: RTO VRR Curve Parameters, 2022/23–2027/28

Delivery Year	Net CONE ($/MW-day)	Pt. (a) Price	Pt. (a) MW	Pt. (b) Price	Pt. (b) MW	VRR Design
2022/23	$260.50	$390.75	136,076	$195.38	139,656	Old
2023/24	$274.96	$412.44	135,914	$206.22	139,473	Old
2024/25	$293.19	$439.79	138,341	$219.89	141,910	Old
2025/26	$228.81	$451.61	133,554	$171.61	137,160	Old
2026/27	$212.14	$329.17	134,887	$177.24	136,361	New
2027/28	$242.52	$333.44	141,681	$179.55	143,218	New

Note: Prices in nominal dollars per MW-day, quantities in MW. Pt. (b) MW is the reliability requirement. Source: PJM Planning Parameters.

I set $K = 3$ symmetric strategic sellers based on the IMM's RSI. Across the six sample years with published IMM RSI data (2022/23 onward, since the 2021/22 BRA predates the available IMM panel), $\text{RSI}_3 < 1$ at the RTO level (Table 2). The three largest sellers are collectively pivotal, meaning no competitive outcome is supportable without their participation. RTO HHI exceeds 2,500 in every sample year, with most constrained LDAs above 4,000. These values qualify as highly concentrated by Department of Justice benchmarks. Sensitivity of the at-cap conclusion to K is bounded by Section 4, where at $K = 4$ the at-cap regime breaks.

The constant marginal cost is set to $c = \$150$/MW-day, the combined-cycle sector average reported in the 2025 IMM State of the Market (Monitoring Analytics, LLC, 2026, Table 7-38, $149.32, rounded). The fringe is modeled as an inelastic block offered at c with capacity $\bar{Q}_f$ equal to total installed capacity less the capacity of the three largest sellers. The model is calibrated and solved for all seven completed BRA delivery years.

6 Cap-Incidence and the Emergence of Shortage

This section documents which administrative constraint was binding in each of PJM's seven completed BRAs and shows that a quantity shortfall against the reliability requirement emerged precisely when the Shapiro settlement cap began to bind. The textbook prediction of Section 4, that a binding ceiling on a tight market produces a quantity shortfall against the planning target, is matched by the timing of the observed shortfall in PJM.

Table 4: Cap-Incidence Panel: Which Administrative Constraint Was Binding, PJM Base Residual Auctions 2021/22–2027/28 (RTO Level)

Year	VRR Design	Clearing price	Net ACR	VRR Pt (a)	Settle. cap	Reserve excess IRM (MW)	TPS mitig.	Binding cap
2021/22	Old	$140	$150	$482	—	—	—	None
2022/23	Old	$50	$150	$391	—	—	0.0%	None
2023/24	Old	$34	$150	$412	—	+5,687	7.3%	TPS active
2024/25	Old	$29	$150	$440	—	+3,278	2.2%	TPS active
2025/26	Old	$270	$150	$452	—	-205	5.5%	TPS active
2026/27	New	$329	$150	$329	$325	-492	6.3%	Settlement
2027/28	New	$333	$150	$333	$325	-6,516	1.0%	Settlement

Notes: Prices in nominal $/MW-day UCAP. Reserve excess IRM is committed UCAP minus IRM-implied required reserves (negative = shortfall). TPS mitigation reports the share of resources for which the IMM calculated unit-specific Market Seller Offer Caps. Binding cap: "Settlement" indicates clearing at the new-design Point (a), which under the Shapiro/PJM agreement embodies the settlement cap; "TPS active" indicates TPS mitigation operative for some marginal resources without pinning headline clearing; "None" indicates clearing well below any administrative cap. The 2021/22 BRA predates locally available IMM SoMs, so TPS and reserve-excess data are "—". Sources: PJM BRA results; IMM State of the Market Reports 2021–2025, Section 5.

Three regimes are visible in Table 4, distinguished by the joint pattern of clearing price, reserve excess relative to the Installed Reserve Margin (IRM), and IMM-applied mitigation activity.

The first regime, covering 2021/22 through 2024/25, is one of comfortable supply margins and cost-anchored clearing. Reserve excess IRM was strongly positive in 2023/24 and 2024/25 (+5,687 MW and +3,278 MW), with data unavailable for 2021/22 and 2022/23. Clearing prices ranged from \$29 to \$140/MW-day, well below both the sector average Net ACR and the design-level VRR Point (a) cap of \$391–\$482/MW-day. TPS mitigation was applied to 0–7% of resources, but with the marginal cleared offer well below any active cap, mitigation operative for a minority of supra-marginal resources did not pin the clearing outcome.

The second regime, in 2025/26, is a transition. Reserve excess IRM turned slightly negative for the first time (−205 MW), the clearing price jumped from \$29 to \$270/MW-day, and TPS mitigation rose to 5.5% of resources. \$270 still falls well below the design Point (a) of \$452, so no administrative cap was binding the clearing. 2025/26 is the auction in which the underlying supply and demand balance tightened without any cap yet binding the headline outcome, and the auction still procured adequate capacity.

The third regime, 2026/27 and 2027/28, is one of cap-binding clearing under negative reserve excess. Both auctions cleared at the new-design VRR Point (a) value, which was the agreed maximum price under the Shapiro/PJM settlement. Reserve excess IRM was −492 MW in 2026/27 and −6,517 MW in 2027/28, and the IMM declared both auctions "not competitive" (Monitoring Analytics, LLC, 2026). The drop in TPS mitigation application from 6.3% in 2026/27 to 1.0% in 2027/28 fits a story in which the settlement cap moved sufficiently close to the underlying offer distribution that fewer individual offers exceeded their unit-specific Net ACR caps. The shortfall relative to the reliability requirement emerged in the same years that the cap became binding.

The cap-incidence panel offers a direct answer to a recurring question about the post-settlement auctions. Did seller behavior change between the slack and tight regimes, or did the binding administrative constraint change while the underlying competitive process remained similar? The data favor the latter interpretation. In slack years, clearings of \$29–\$140/MW-day fell well below any plausible unconstrained strategic price, and cost-anchored

offers and TPS mitigation held the headline price. In the cap-binding years, clearing equaled the cap by construction in any model in which the at-cap regime reigns. The dramatic price changes between regimes therefore reflect a change in which administrative constraint binds, not a structural shift in conduct. The independent evidence that this is not a circular reading is the *timing* of the reserve margin flip. Reserve excess IRM turned negative in the 2025/26 transition auction, one year before the cap took effect, and stayed negative in the two cap-binding years that followed.

7 Capped Auctions and Quantity Rationing in 2026/27 and 2027/28

The cap-incidence panel establishes that a quantity shortfall against the reliability requirement emerged in the two delivery years for which the Shapiro settlement cap was binding. This section turns to the dollar and physical consequences of the shortfall in each auction. Both cases use the IMM's mechanical unrestricted-VRR counterfactual, which re-clears the same offers against the pre-settlement demand curve, as the principal benchmark.

The 2026/27 BRA cleared at $329.17/MW-day, which under the new VRR design embodies the settlement cap. The market cleared 314 MW below the RTO reliability requirement of 134,519.5 MW, a 0.23% shortfall, and 492 MW below the IRM-implied reserve target. The IMM declared the auction "not competitive" (Monitoring Analytics, LLC, 2026). Capacity Performance offers had unit-specific Market Seller Offer Caps calculated for 6.3% of generation resources.

The IMM's mechanical counterfactual scenario re-clears the same offers against the unrestricted (pre-settlement) VRR demand curve and yields total revenues of $19.29 billion, a 19.7% increase over the $16.12 billion actual revenue (Monitoring Analytics, LLC, 2026). The system-level revenue increase substantially exceeds what the $4.17/MW-day RTO-level binding gap alone implies. Most of the difference comes from constrained LDAs in which

local Point (a) caps lie further above the settlement cap than at the RTO level, so re-clearing those LDAs against the unrestricted VRR raises both their local prices and the imports they pay for. With the RTO reserve margin only marginally negative, the cap compressed the price signal more than it compressed the quantity procured at the system level.

The 2027/28 BRA cleared at $333.44/MW-day, again at the new-design Point (a). The market cleared 6,623 MW below the RTO reliability requirement of 141,101 MW, a 4.7% shortfall that the IMM characterized as material. The auction was declared "not competitive" on the same basis as 2026/27. Unit-specific MSOCs were calculated for only 1.0% of resources, in line with the settlement cap moving close enough to the underlying offer distribution that fewer individual offers exceeded their cost-basis caps.

The IMM unrestricted VRR counterfactual produces total revenues of $26.32 billion, a 60.4% increase over the $16.41 billion actual revenue. The disproportionately large increase relative to 2026/27 reflects two compounding channels. The unrestricted VRR allows clearing at a higher counterfactual price further up the demand curve, and offers above the settlement cap that were excluded under the actual auction would have cleared at higher counterfactual quantity. At a counterfactual price of $500/MW-day and the actual cleared quantity of 134,478 MW over 366 days, revenues would be approximately $24.6 billion. The IMM's $26.32 billion exceeds this by roughly $1.7 billion, implying a counterfactual cleared quantity of approximately 144,000 MW. That is about 9,500 MW above actual and roughly equal to the reliability requirement plus a positive reserve margin. Under the IMM scenario the unrestricted auction would have realized higher prices and procured adequate capacity, while under the cap the auction achieved neither.

Table 5: Capacity Market Revenue Under Counterfactual Cap Regimes (System Total)

Scenario	2026/27 revenue	2027/28 revenue	Two-year total	Implied savings
Actual (settlement-modified VRR)	\$16.12B	\$16.41B	\$32.53B	—
IMM unrestricted-VRR counterfactual	\$19.29B	\$26.32B	\$45.62B	\$13.08B
Percent increase vs. actual	+19.7%	+60.4%	+40.2%	—
\$500/MW-day at actual cleared MW	\$24.51B	\$24.60B	\$49.10B	\$16.57B
Stated Pennsylvania claim	—	—	∼\$21B	∼\$21B

Notes: Revenues in nominal dollars over the delivery year. Figures are from the IMM 2025 State of the Market Report (Monitoring Analytics, LLC, 2026).

The 2027/28 case is the cleanest evidence in the sample of the quantity rationing channel of a binding administrative cap. The 2026/27 case isolates the price channel in a market only marginally short of adequacy. Together the two cases trace how the textbook prediction of Section 4 plays out in the data. A binding ceiling caps the price signal in any tight market, and where supply at the cap is insufficient to meet the planning target the auction clears short of it as well.

8 Conclusion

Standard price-control theory predicts that a binding ceiling on a tight market truncates the price signal and produces a quantity shortfall against the planning target. PJM's two capped delivery years, 2026/27 and 2027/28, show both effects. Clearing prices were held at the new-design Point (a) value, and cleared capacity fell short of the reliability requirement by 314 MW and 6,623 MW respectively (Section 7). The shortfall emerged in the same years the cap became binding (Section 6), with no comparable shortfall in any prior auction in the sample. The textbook prediction and the data line up.

The Pennsylvania-stated savings figure of approximately $21 billion compares actual revenue under the settlement-modified VRR to a counterfactual price "over $500/MW-day" (Office of Governor Josh Shapiro, 2025) applied to the capped quantity, and so mixes the price and quantity channels. The IMM's mechanical unrestricted-VRR counterfactual, which holds offers fixed and re-clears against the pre-settlement demand curve, implies two-year revenues of $45.62 billion against actual $32.53 billion. The system-level difference is $13.08 billion, and under the same scenario the auction would have procured approximately 9,500 MW more capacity in 2027/28 (Table 5). Treating the difference as "savings" conflates a price reduction with a quantity rationing shortfall. Under the cap, consumers paid less, and in 2027/28 particularly the auction procured less than the reliability target.

Lead time compression amplifies the investment signal cost. The 2025/26, 2026/27, and 2027/28 BRAs were held with 10 to 18 months of lead time against a three-year forward design (Table 1). A 10-month horizon is too short for greenfield gas generator construction but non-trivial for demand response, battery storage, and capacity upgrades to existing plants. Auction prices also inform retirement deferral decisions on the same timescale (Cramton and Stoft, 2005). A two-year cap layered on a tight market therefore disrupts the retirement and short-deployment signal precisely in the years when it would have been most informative, and the new four-point VRR design potentially recovers some of that signal in subsequent auctions (Federal Energy Regulatory Commission, 2025).

The welfare reading depends on whether the underlying scarcity is real or strategic. If sellers were exercising market power and the unconstrained equilibrium reflected rents above efficient scarcity prices, the cap would be welfare improving. If the underlying scarcity is real, driven by load growth and supply tightening that the IMM attributes to data center demand (Monitoring Analytics, LLC, 2026), the cap induces a quantity shortage in years when capacity adequacy is most needed and cuts off the very price signal the capacity market exists to send. The cap-incidence panel of Section 6, the declared "not competitive" status of both auctions, and the appearance of the textbook ceiling-induced shortfall together favor

the latter reading.

The paper is restricted to evaluating the connection between the standard price-control prediction and the PJM evidence. Two natural extensions for distinguishing scarcity from conduct quantitatively are an asymmetric-firm SFE that recovers seller-specific costs from offer data, and a dynamic capacity-adequacy model connecting markups to entry and retirement decisions.

The natural next step for further research is to separate scarcity from conduct more directly. Unit-level offer data would allow an asymmetric-firm SFE that recovers seller-specific costs and markups, while a dynamic capacity adequacy model could connect capped revenues to entry, retirement, demand response, and storage participation. That would extend the present analysis from a cap-incidence exercise to a fuller estimate of the settlement's long-run resource adequacy consequences.

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